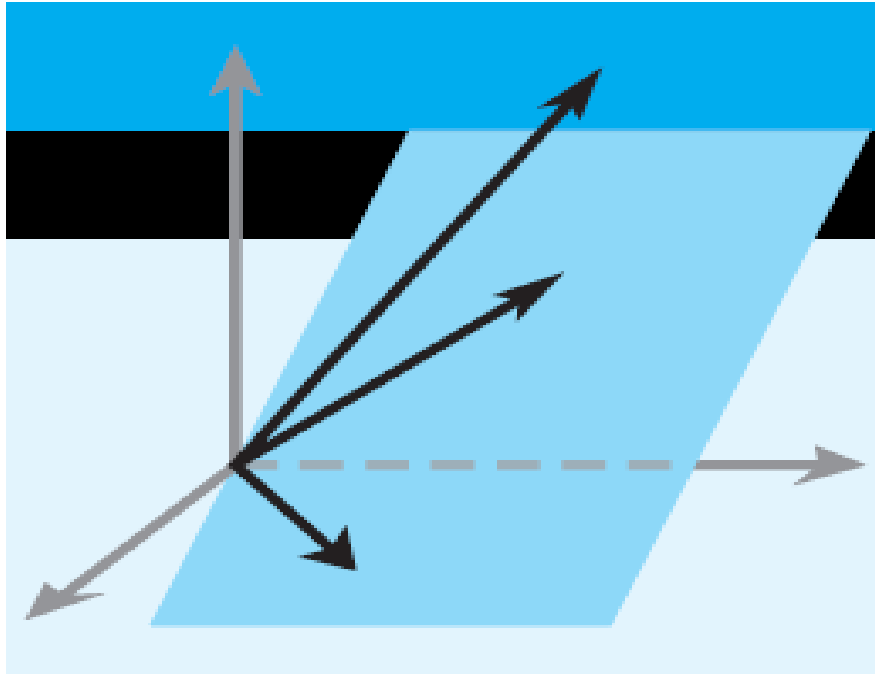


Elementary Linear Algebra

Chapter 6



Howard Anton
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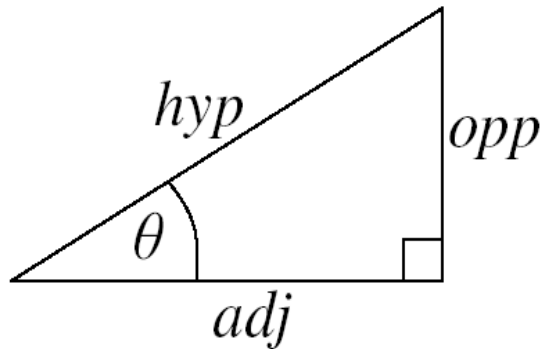
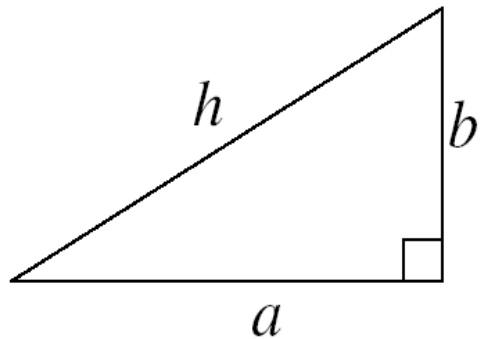
Chapter 6 Inner Product Spaces

- 6.1 Inner Products
- 6.2 Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces Page 341
- 6.3 Gram-Schmidt Process;
QR-Decomposition
- 6.4 Best Approximation; Least Squares
- 6.5 Least Squares Fitting to Data
- 6.6 Function Approximation; Fourier Series

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

Review



Pythagoras's Theorem

$$a^2 + b^2 = h^2$$

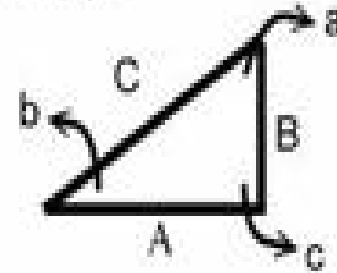
Trigonometric Ratios

$$\sin(\theta) = \frac{\text{opp}}{\text{hyp}}$$

$$\cos(\theta) = \frac{\text{adj}}{\text{hyp}}$$

$$\tan(\theta) = \frac{\text{opp}}{\text{adj}}$$

直角三角形



A, B, C 為三角形三個邊
 a, b, c 為三角形三個角
 其中 c 為直角(90度)：所以
 $a+b=90$

畢氏定理 $C^2 = A^2 + B^2$

正弦定理 ($\frac{\text{對邊}}{\text{斜邊}}$) $\sin a = \frac{A}{C}$, $\sin b = \frac{B}{C}$

餘弦定理 ($\frac{\text{鄰邊}}{\text{斜邊}}$) $\cos a = \frac{B}{C}$, $\cos b = \frac{A}{C}$

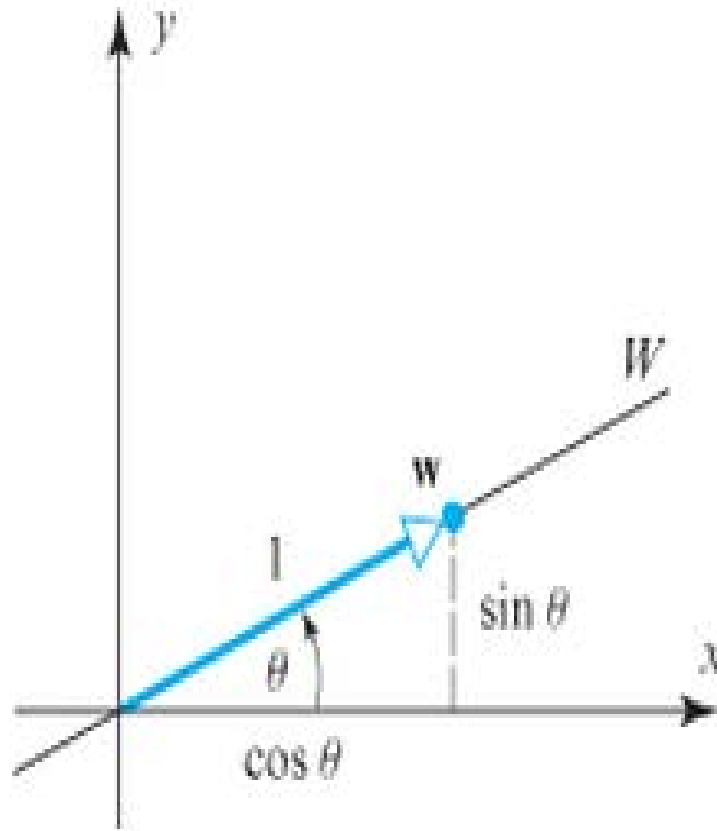
正切定理 ($\frac{\text{對邊}}{\text{鄰邊}}$) $\tan a = \frac{A}{B}$, $\tan b = \frac{B}{A}$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

Review

$$\mathbb{R}^2$$



► Figure 6.4.2

Section 6.2

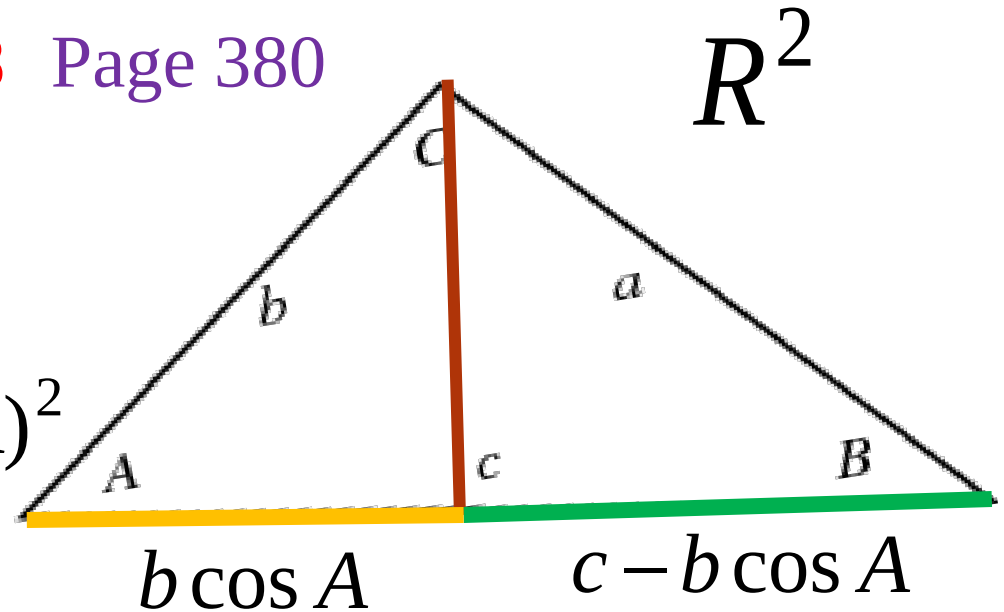
Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

Review Law of cosine # 58 Page 380

$$\text{length of red line} = b^2 - b^2 \cos^2 A$$

$$\text{length of red line} = a^2 - (c - b \cos A)^2$$

?????



$$a^2 = b^2 + c^2 - 2bc \cos A$$

$$\cos A = \text{adj} / b$$

$$\text{adj} = b \cos A$$

$$b^2 - b^2 \cos^2 A = a^2 - c^2 + 2bc \cos A - b^2 \cos^2 A$$

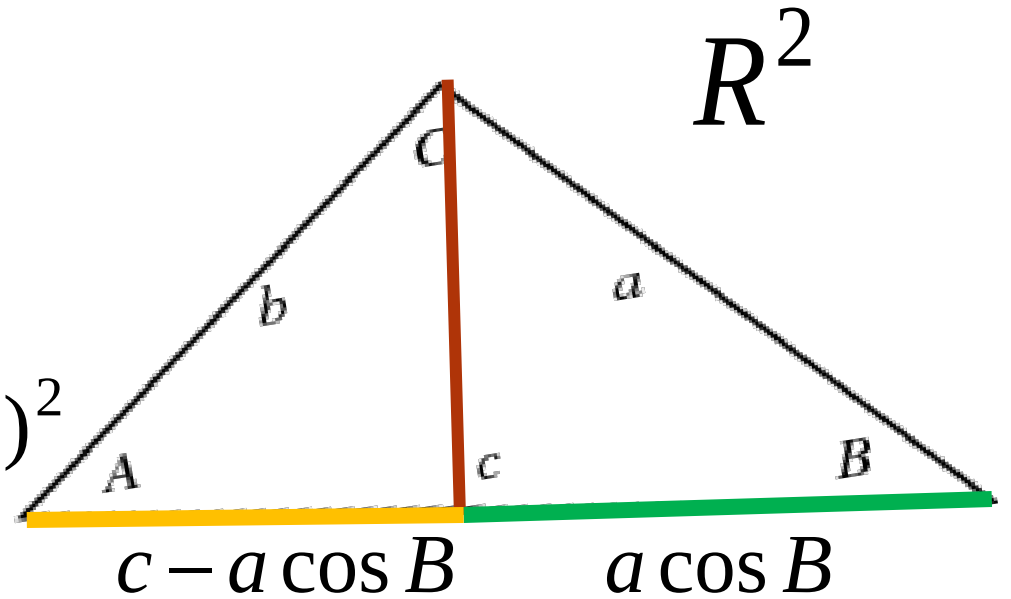
Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

Review Law of cosine

length of red line = $a^2 - a^2 \cos^2 B$

length of red line = $b^2 - (c - a \cos B)^2$



$$b^2 = a^2 + c^2 - 2ac \cos B$$

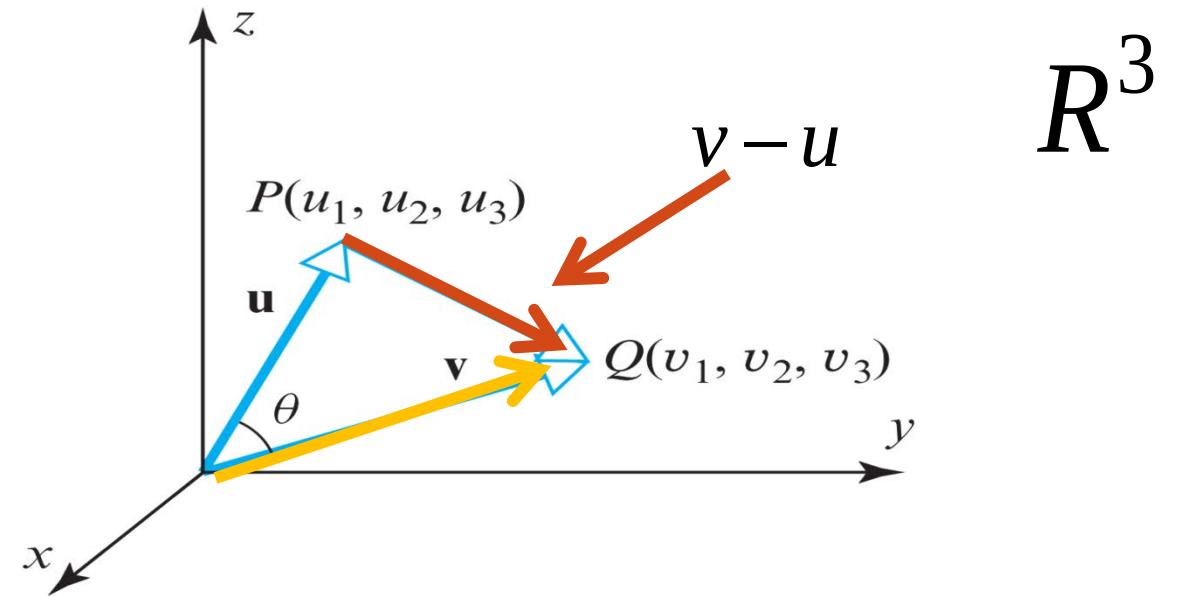
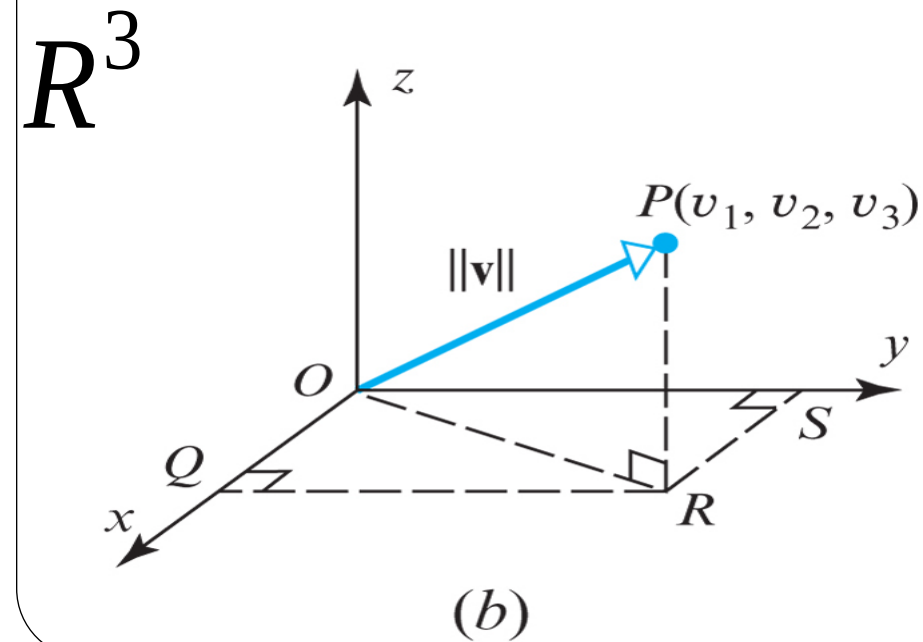
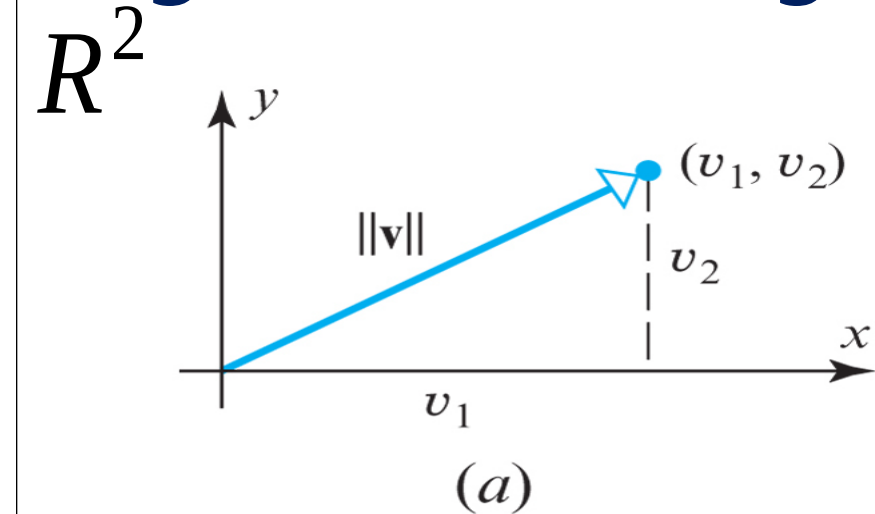
$$\cos B = \text{adj} / a$$

$$\text{adj} = a \cos B$$

$$a^2 - a^2 \cos^2 B = b^2 - c^2 + 2ac \cos B - a^2 \cos^2 B$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces



$$a^2 = b^2 + c^2 - 2bc \cos A$$

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$$\|v - u\|^2 = \|u\|^2 + \|v\|^2 - 2\|v\|\|u\|\cos \theta$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

R^3

$$\|v - u\|^2 = \|v\|^2 + \|u\|^2 - 2\|v\|\|u\|\cos\theta$$

$$\|u\| = \sqrt{u_1^2 + u_2^2 + u_3^2} \quad \|u\|^2 = u_1^2 + u_2^2 + u_3^2$$

$$\|v\| = \sqrt{v_1^2 + v_2^2 + v_3^2} \quad \|v\|^2 = v_1^2 + v_2^2 + v_3^2$$

$$\|v - u\| = \sqrt{(v_1 - u_1)^2 + (v_2 - u_2)^2 + (v_3 - u_3)^2}$$

$$u = \begin{bmatrix} u_1 \\ u_2 \\ u_3 \end{bmatrix} \quad v = \begin{bmatrix} v_1 \\ v_2 \\ v_3 \end{bmatrix}$$



Key point

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

$$\|v - u\|^2 = \|v\|^2 + \|u\|^2 - 2\langle u, v \rangle \quad R^3$$

$$-2\|u\|\|v\|\cos\theta = -(2v_1u_1 + 2v_2u_2 + 2v_3u_3)$$

$$\|u\|\|v\|\cos\theta = \langle u, v \rangle = u \bullet v$$

$$\cos\theta = \frac{\langle u, v \rangle}{\|u\|\|v\|}$$



$$\theta = \cos^{-1} \left(\frac{\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle}{\|\mathbf{u}\|\|\mathbf{v}\|} \right)$$

Section 6.2

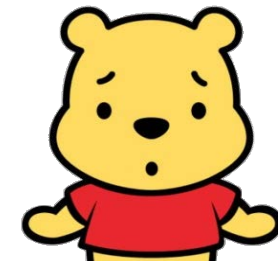
Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

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DEFINITION 3

If $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are nonzero vectors in $\mathbb{R}^2$ or $\mathbb{R}^3$, and if θ is the angle between $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$, then the *dot product* (also called the *Euclidean inner product*) of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ is denoted by $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}$ and is defined as

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = \|\mathbf{u}\| \|\mathbf{v}\| \cos \theta$$



(12)

If $\mathbf{u} = \mathbf{0}$ or $\mathbf{v} = \mathbf{0}$, then we define $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}$ to be 0.

$$\cos \theta = \frac{\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle}{\|\mathbf{u}\| \|\mathbf{v}\|}$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

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DEFINITION 4

If $\mathbf{u} = (u_1, u_2, \dots, u_n)$ and $\mathbf{v} = (v_1, v_2, \dots, v_n)$ are vectors in R^n , then the *dot product* (also called the *Euclidean inner product*) of $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ is denoted by $\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v}$ and is defined by

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = u_1 v_1 + u_2 v_2 + \dots + u_n v_n$$

(17)

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

► EXAMPLE 1 Cosine of an Angle Between Two Vectors in R^4

Page 343

Let R^4 have the Euclidean inner product. Find the cosine of the angle θ between the vectors $\mathbf{u} = (4, 3, 1, -2)$ and $\mathbf{v} = (-2, 1, 2, 3)$.

Solution We leave it for you to verify that

$$\|\mathbf{u}\| = \sqrt{30}, \quad \|\mathbf{v}\| = \sqrt{18}, \quad \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle = -9$$

from which it follows that

$$\cos \theta = \frac{\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle}{\|\mathbf{u}\| \|\mathbf{v}\|} = -\frac{9}{\sqrt{30}\sqrt{18}} = -\frac{3}{2\sqrt{15}}$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

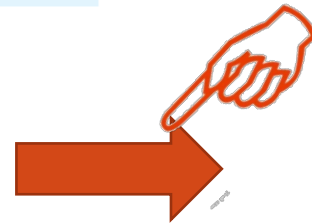
Page 341

R^3

$$\theta = \cos^{-1} \left(\frac{\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle}{\|\mathbf{u}\| \|\mathbf{v}\|} \right)$$

Key point

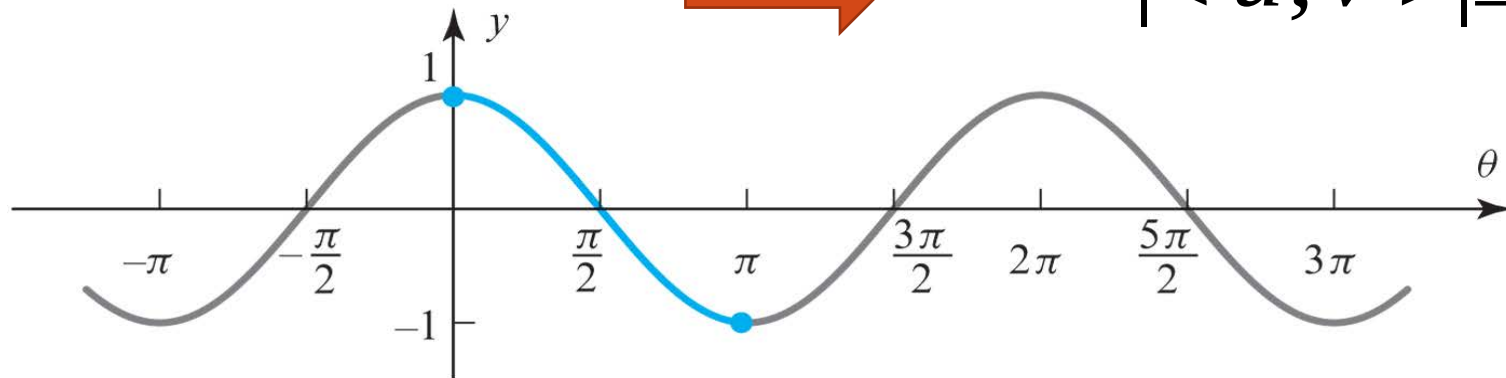
$$\cos \theta = \frac{\langle u, v \rangle}{\|u\| \|v\|}$$



$$-1 \leq \frac{\langle u, v \rangle}{\|u\| \|v\|} \leq 1$$



$$|\langle u, v \rangle| \leq \|u\| \|v\|$$



Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

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THEOREM 6.2.1 Cauchy-Schwarz Inequality

If $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are vectors in a real inner product space V , then

$$| \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle | \leq \| \mathbf{u} \| \| \mathbf{v} \| \quad (3)$$

For general vector space,
the proof is based on a clever trick



Section 6.2

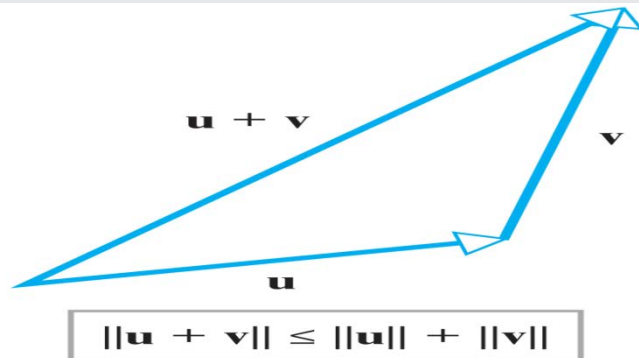
Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

THEOREM 6.2.2

If $\mathbf{u}$, $\mathbf{v}$, and $\mathbf{w}$ are vectors in a real inner product space V , and if k is any scalar, then:

(a) $\|\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}\| \leq \|\mathbf{u}\| + \|\mathbf{v}\|$ [Triangle inequality for vectors]

(b) $d(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v}) \leq d(\mathbf{u}, \mathbf{w}) + d(\mathbf{w}, \mathbf{v})$ [Triangle inequality for distances]



 Key point

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

Show that

$$\|u + v\| \leq \|u\| + \|v\|$$

Proof:

$$\|u + v\|^2 = \langle u + v, u + v \rangle$$

By definition

$$= \langle u, u \rangle + \langle u, v \rangle + \langle v, u \rangle + \langle v, v \rangle$$

$$= \langle u, u \rangle + \langle u, v \rangle + \langle u, v \rangle + \langle v, v \rangle$$

$$= \|u\|^2 + 2\langle u, v \rangle + \|v\|^2$$

$$\leq \|u\|^2 + 2|\langle u, v \rangle| + \|v\|^2$$

Property of
absolute value

$$\leq \|u\|^2 + 2\|u\|\|v\| + \|v\|^2$$

Cauchy Schwarz
inequality

$$= (\|u\| + \|v\|)^2$$

Section 6.2

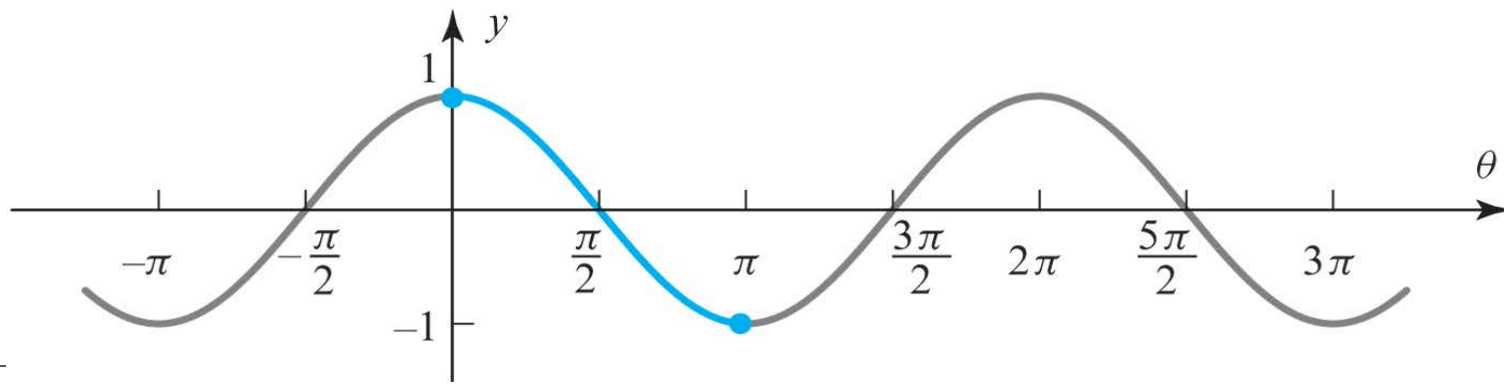
Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

DEFINITION 1 Two vectors $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ in an inner product space are called *orthogonal* if $\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle = 0$.



$\mathbb{R}^3$

$$\langle u, v \rangle = u \bullet v = \|u\| \|v\| \cos \theta = 0$$



Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

► **EXAMPLE 2** Orthogonality Depends on the Inner Product

The vectors $\mathbf{u} = (1, 1)$ and $\mathbf{v} = (1, -1)$ are orthogonal with respect to the Euclidean inner product on $\mathbb{R}^2$ since

$$\mathbf{u} \cdot \mathbf{v} = (1)(1) + (1)(-1) = 0$$

However, they are not orthogonal with respect to the weighted Euclidean inner product $\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle = 3u_1v_1 + 2u_2v_2$ since

$$\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle = 3(1)(1) + 2(1)(-1) = 1 \neq 0$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

▶ EXAMPLE 3 Orthogonal Vectors in M_{22}

If M_{22} has the inner product of Example 6 in the preceding section, then the matrices

$$U = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 1 & 1 \end{bmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad V = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 2 \\ 0 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

are orthogonal since

$$\langle U, V \rangle = \text{trace}(U^T V)$$

$$\langle U, V \rangle = 1(0) + 0(2) + 1(0) + 1(0) = 0$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

► EXAMPLE 4 Orthogonal Vectors in P_2

Let P_2 have the inner product

$$\langle p, q \rangle = \int_{-1}^1 p(x)q(x)dx$$

$p = x, q = x^2$ Then

$$\|p\| = \langle p, p \rangle^{1/2} = \left[\int_{-1}^1 x x dx \right]^{1/2} = \left[\int_{-1}^1 x^2 dx \right]^{1/2} = \sqrt{\frac{2}{3}}$$

$$\|q\| = \langle q, q \rangle^{1/2} = \left[\int_{-1}^1 x^2 x^2 dx \right]^{1/2} = \left[\int_{-1}^1 x^4 dx \right]^{1/2} = \sqrt{\frac{2}{5}}$$

$$\langle p, q \rangle = \int_{-1}^1 x x^2 dx = \int_{-1}^1 x^3 dx = 0$$

Because $\langle p, q \rangle = 0$, the vectors $p = x$ and $q = x^2$ are orthogonal relative to the given inner product.

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

THEOREM 6.2.3 Generalized Theorem of Pythagoras

If $\mathbf{u}$ and $\mathbf{v}$ are orthogonal vectors in a real inner product space, then

$$\|\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}\|^2 = \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2$$

Proof:

$$\begin{aligned}\|\mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}\|^2 &= \langle \mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{u} + \mathbf{v} \rangle && \text{By definition} \\ &= \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{u} \rangle + \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle + \langle \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{u} \rangle + \langle \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{v} \rangle \\ &= \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{u} \rangle + \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle + \langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle + \langle \mathbf{v}, \mathbf{v} \rangle \\ &= \|\mathbf{u}\|^2 + \underbrace{2\langle \mathbf{u}, \mathbf{v} \rangle}_{0} + \|\mathbf{v}\|^2\end{aligned}$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

► EXAMPLE 5 Theorem of Pythagoras in P_2

In Example [4](#) we showed that $p = x$ and $q = x^2$ are orthogonal with respect to the inner product

$$\langle p, q \rangle = \int_{-1}^1 p(x) q(x) dx$$

$$\langle p, q \rangle = \int_{-1}^1 p(x)q(x)dx$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

on P_2 . It follows from Theorem [6.2.3](#) that

$$\| \mathbf{p} + \mathbf{q} \|^2 = \| \mathbf{p} \|^2 + \| \mathbf{q} \|^2$$

Thus, from the computations in Example [4](#), we have

$$\| \mathbf{p} + \mathbf{q} \|^2 = \left(\sqrt{\frac{2}{3}} \right)^2 + \left(\sqrt{\frac{2}{5}} \right)^2 = \frac{2}{3} + \frac{2}{5} = \frac{16}{15}$$

We can check this result by direct integration:

$$\begin{aligned} \| \mathbf{p} + \mathbf{q} \|^2 &= \langle \mathbf{p} + \mathbf{q}, \mathbf{p} + \mathbf{q} \rangle = \int_{-1}^1 (x + x^2)(x + x^2) dx \\ &= \int_{-1}^1 x^2 dx + 2 \int_{-1}^1 x^3 dx + \int_{-1}^1 x^4 dx = \frac{2}{3} + 0 + \frac{2}{5} = \frac{16}{15} \end{aligned}$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

DEFINITION 2

If W is a subspace of a real inner product space V , then the set of all vectors in V that are orthogonal to every vector in W is called the *orthogonal complement* of W and is denoted by the symbol $W^\perp$.

Section 6.2

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Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

THEOREM 6.2.4

If W is a subspace of a real inner product space V , then:

(a) $W^\perp$ is a subspace of V .

(b) $W \cap W^\perp = \{\mathbf{0}\}$.

Proof:

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$$W^\perp = \{v : \langle v, u \rangle = 0, \quad \forall u \in W\}$$

Discuss in the class!!

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

THEOREM 6.2.5

If W is a subspace of a real finite-dimensional inner product space V , then the orthogonal complement of $W^\perp$ is W ; that is,

$$(W^\perp)^\perp = W$$

Proof:

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Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

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► EXAMPLE 6 Basis for an Orthogonal Complement

Let W be the subspace of $\mathbb{R}^6$ spanned by the vectors

$$\mathbf{w}_1 = (1, 3, -2, 0, 2, 0), \quad \mathbf{w}_2 = (2, 6, -5, -2, 4, -3),$$

$$\mathbf{w}_3 = (0, 0, 5, 10, 0, 15), \quad \mathbf{w}_4 = (2, 6, 0, 8, 4, 18)$$

Find a basis for the orthogonal complement of W .

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

Solution

The subspace W is the same as the row space of the matrix

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} 1 & 3 & -2 & 0 & 2 & 0 \\ 2 & 6 & -5 & -2 & 4 & -3 \\ 0 & 0 & 5 & 10 & 0 & 15 \\ 2 & 6 & 0 & 8 & 4 & 18 \end{bmatrix}$$

Since the row space and null space of A are orthogonal complements, our problem reduces to finding a basis for the null space of this matrix. In Example [4](#) of Section [4.7](#) we showed that

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \begin{bmatrix} -3 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_2 = \begin{bmatrix} -4 \\ 0 \\ -2 \\ 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{v}_3 = \begin{bmatrix} -2 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

Section 6.2

Angle and Orthogonality in Inner Product Spaces

form a basis for this null space. Expressing these vectors in comma-delimited form (to match that of w_1, w_2, w_3 , and w_4), we obtain the basis vectors

$$v_1 = (-3, 1, 0, 0, 0, 0), \quad v_2 = (-4, 0, -2, 1, 0, 0), \quad v_3 = (-2, 0, 0, 0, 1, 0)$$

You may want to check that these vectors are orthogonal to w_1, w_2, w_3 , and w_4 by computing the necessary dot products.



Homework

Sec 6.2

True/False

Page 347

45, 48 (a)

Page 380

55, 56, 57

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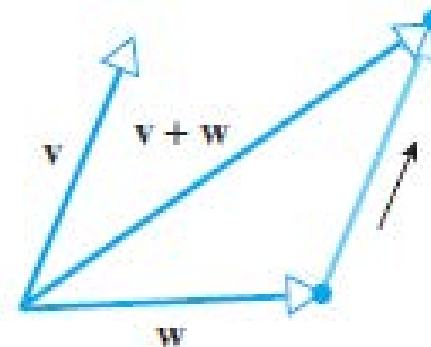
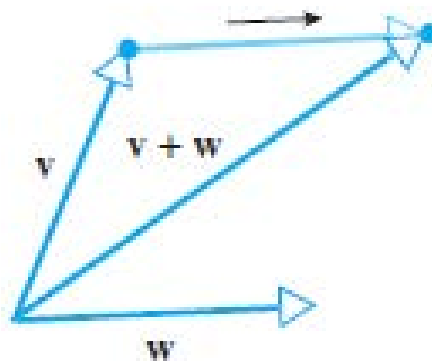
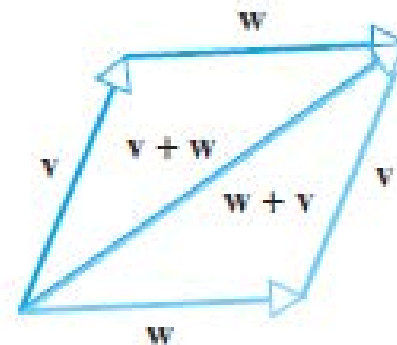
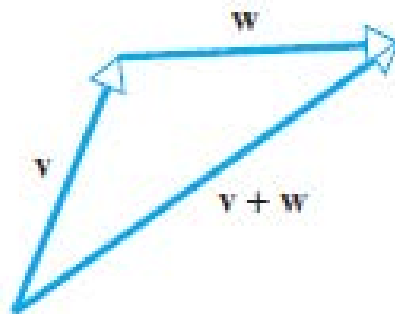
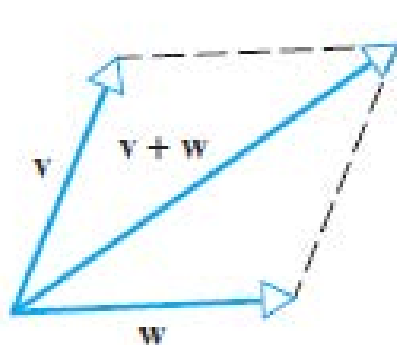
61, 63, 64 (a)

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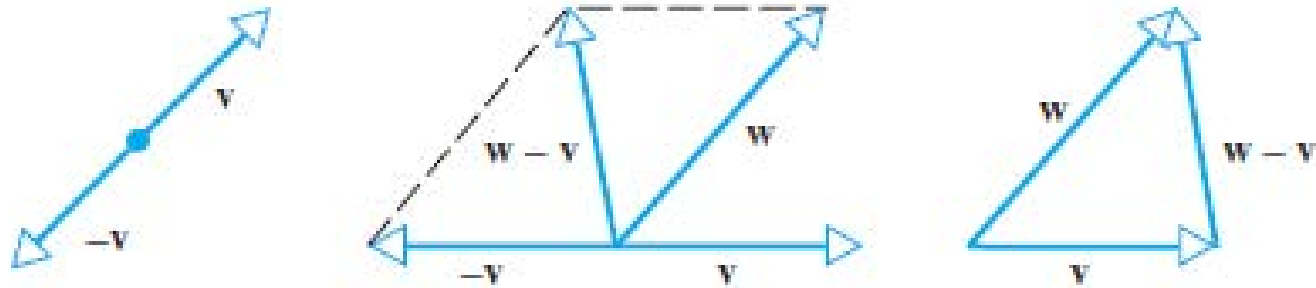
Section 3.1 Vectors Review

Addition of vectors by the parallelogram or triangle rules

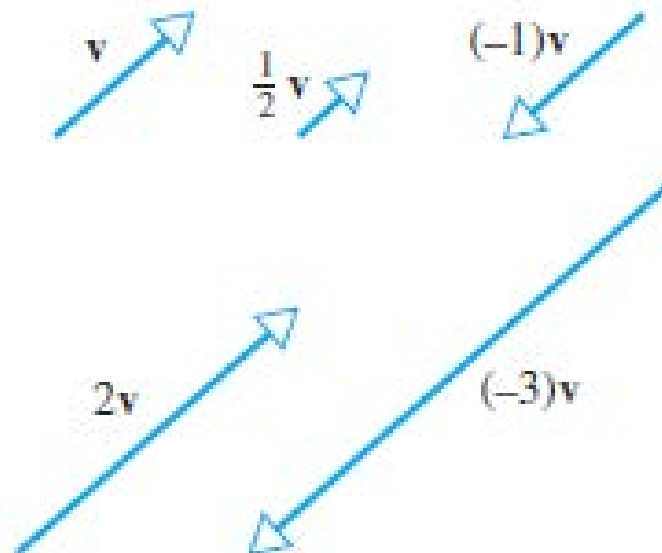


Section 3.1 Vectors Review

Subtraction:

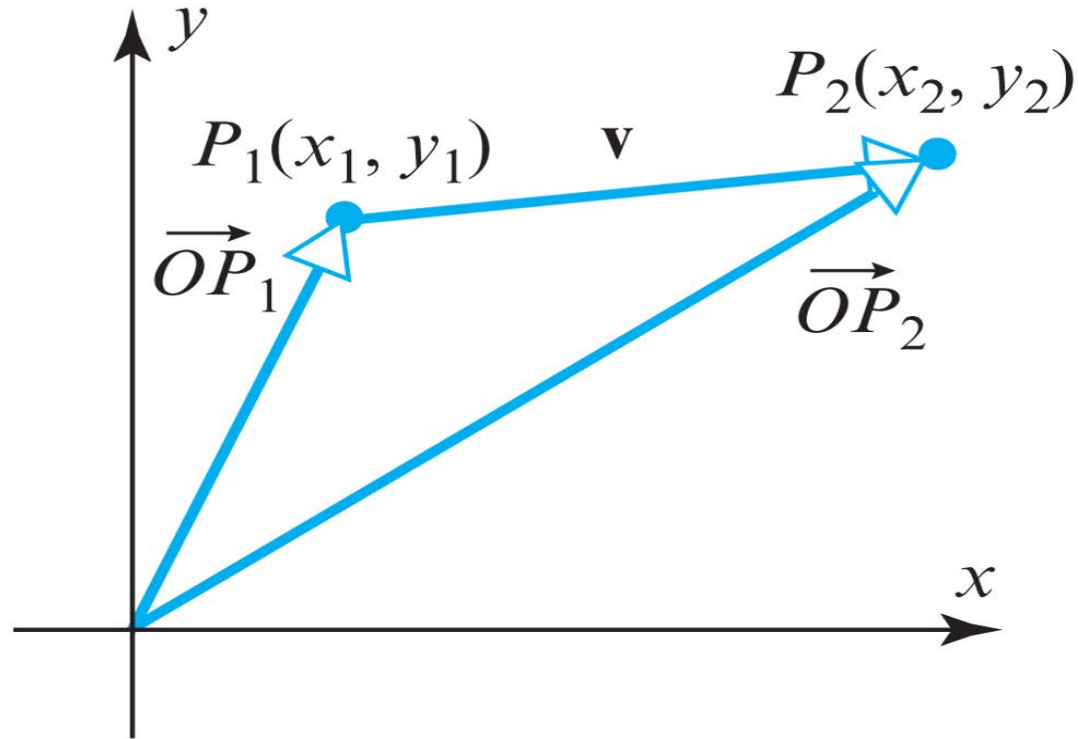


Scalar Multiplication:



Section 3.1 Vectors Review

Subtraction:



$$\mathbf{v} = \overrightarrow{P_1P_2} = \vec{OP_2} - \vec{OP_1}$$